

Lecture 14: Entropy Balance for Open Systems

CBE 20260 / Thermodynamics I

Edward Maginn

Table of contents

1	Introduction	1
2	The General Entropy Balance	2
2.1	Special Case: Steady-State	2
3	Example 1: Non-Reversible Compressor	3
3.1	Step 1: First Law (Energy Balance)	4
3.2	Step 2: Second Law (Entropy Generation)	4
3.3	Isentropic Efficiency	5
4	Example 2: Adiabatic Compressor with Isentropic Efficiency	5
4.1	Step 1: Determine the Isentropic Outlet Temperature (T_2')	5
4.2	Step 2: Apply Isentropic Efficiency to find Actual T_2	6
4.3	Step 3: Calculate Power Requirement	6
5	Example 3: Quenching a Workpiece	7
5.1	Step 1: Find Final Temperature	7
5.2	Step 2: Entropy Change	7
6	Example 4: The Joule-Thomson Expansion	8
6.1	Energy Balance	8
6.2	Does Temperature Change?	9
6.2.1	Case A: Ideal Gas	9
6.2.2	Case B: Real Gas	9
6.2.3	Case C: Steam	10

1 Introduction

In the previous lecture, we developed the entropy balance for **closed systems** (fixed mass). Today, we extend this to **Open Systems**, where mass flows across the system boundaries.

This allows us to analyze continuous engineering devices like turbines, compressors, heat exchangers, and throttle valves.

2 The General Entropy Balance

Just like the First Law, the Second Law for an open system accounts for:

1. Rate of change of entropy within the system.
2. Entropy carried in/out by mass flow.
3. Entropy transfer via heat (recall: Work does not directly transfer entropy).
4. Entropy **Generation** (the irreversible part).

The general rate form is:

$$\frac{d(M\hat{S})}{dt} = \sum_{in} \dot{m}_{in} \hat{S}_{in} - \sum_{out} \dot{m}_{out} \hat{S}_{out} + \sum_j \frac{\dot{Q}_j}{T_j} + \dot{S}_{gen} \quad (1)$$

where

- $\dot{m}\hat{S}$: The convective transport of entropy (entropy moving with fluid).
- $\dot{Q}/T$: Entropy transfer accompanying heat transfer at boundary temperature T . There could be multiple heat transfer paths, hence the sum over j .
- $\dot{S}_{gen}$: Rate of entropy generation due to irreversibilities. $\dot{S}_{gen} \geq 0$.

With the exception of the generation term, this is similar to the First Law statement of **energy conservation**. Entropy has a generation term, however, that accounts for the fact that real processes are irreversible and generate entropy. We do not have entropy conservation in the same way that we have energy conservation.

The integrated form of Eq. 1 for a finite time interval is:

$$\Delta S = \sum_{in} m\hat{S} - \sum_{out} m\hat{S} + \sum_{heat} \frac{Q}{T} + S_{gen} \quad (2)$$

where m represents the mass that flowed in or out during the process. Indices have been dropped for simplicity.

2.1 Special Case: Steady-State

For steady-state processes (most continuous operations), no properties change with time inside the system so we have

$$\frac{d(M\hat{S})}{dt} = 0 \text{ or } \Delta S = 0.$$

Time-dependent form

$$0 = \sum_{in} \dot{m}_{in} \hat{S}_{in} - \sum_{out} \dot{m}_{out} \hat{S}_{out} + \sum_j \frac{\dot{Q}_j}{T_j} + \dot{S}_{gen}$$

Integrated form

$$0 = \sum_{in} m_{in} \hat{S}_{in} - \sum_{out} m_{out} \hat{S}_{out} + \sum_j \frac{Q_j}{T_j} + S_{gen}$$

Rearranging to solve for generation:

$$\dot{S}_{gen} = \sum_{out} \dot{m}_{out} \hat{S}_{out} - \sum_{in} \dot{m}_{in} \hat{S}_{in} - \sum_j \frac{\dot{Q}_j}{T_j} \geq 0$$

or

$$S_{gen} = \sum_{out} m_{out} \hat{S}_{out} - \sum_{in} m_{in} \hat{S}_{in} - \sum_j \frac{Q_j}{T_j} \geq 0$$

Single-Inlet, Single-Outlet (SISO)

For a device with one inlet and one outlet (like a pump or compressor) at steady state:

$$\dot{S}_{gen} = \dot{m}(\hat{S}_{out} - \hat{S}_{in}) - \frac{\dot{Q}}{T}$$

3 Example 1: Non-Reversible Compressor

Consider a steady-state air compressor.

- **Fluid:** Air (ideal gas, diatomic, $C_P \approx \frac{7}{2}R$).
- **System:** The compressor itself (the control volume includes the blades, casing, etc.).
- **Inlet (1):** 1 bar, 290 K.
- **Outlet (2):** 10 bar, 600 K.
- **Heat Transfer:** The compressor is adiabatic ($\dot{Q} = 0$).
- **Mass Flow:** $\dot{m} = 1$ mol/s (molar basis).

Goal: Calculate the work required and the entropy generation.

3.1 Step 1: First Law (Energy Balance)

Open system energy balance, steady-state, adiabatic, KE and PE negligible:

$$0 = \dot{m}(\hat{H}_{in} - \hat{H}_{out}) + \dot{W}_s$$

or

$$\Delta \dot{H} = \dot{W}_s$$

$$\dot{W}_s = \dot{m}(\hat{H}_{out} - \hat{H}_{in}) = \dot{m}C_P(T_2 - T_1)$$

$$\dot{W}_s = (1 \frac{\text{mol}}{\text{s}})(29.1 \frac{\text{J}}{\text{mol K}})(600 - 290 \text{ K})$$

$$\dot{W}_s = +9,021 \text{ Watts}$$

3.2 Step 2: Second Law (Entropy Generation)

$$\dot{S}_{gen} = \dot{m}(\hat{S}_2 - \hat{S}_1) - \frac{\dot{Q}}{T}$$

Since $\dot{Q} = 0$:

$$\dot{S}_{gen} = \dot{m}\Delta \hat{S}$$

For an ideal gas:

$$\Delta \hat{S} = C_P \ln \left(\frac{T_2}{T_1} \right) - R \ln \left(\frac{P_2}{P_1} \right) \quad (3)$$

Plugging in values ($R = 8.314 \text{ J/mol K}$):

1. **Temperature Term:** $29.1 \ln(600/290) = 29.1(0.727) = 21.16 \text{ J/mol K}$. **Note the use of absolute temperature (K) in the log term!**
2. **Pressure Term:** $8.314 \ln(10/1) = 8.314(2.302) = 19.14 \text{ J/mol K}$

$$\dot{S}_{gen} = 1 \cdot (21.16 - 19.14) = +2.02 \frac{\text{J}}{\text{K} \cdot \text{s}}$$

Since $\dot{S}_{gen} > 0$, this process is **Irreversible** and possible.

3.3 Isentropic Efficiency

We can compare the *actual* work to the *ideal* (reversible) work. We call this the isentropic efficiency of the compressor:

$$\eta_{comp} = \frac{\dot{W}_{ideal}}{\dot{W}_{actual}}$$

This will be less than 1 for a real compressor due to irreversibilities. It is often given as a percentage and is somewhere between 70-90% for typical compressors.

If the process were reversible ($\Delta S = 0$), the outlet temperature T'_2 would be (from Eq. 3 with $\Delta S = 0$):

$$T'_2 = T_1 \left(\frac{P_2}{P_1} \right)^{R/C_P} = 290(10)^{2/7} \approx 560 \text{ K}$$

The actual compressor heats the gas to 600 K, requiring more work than the ideal case (560 K). The irreversibility shows up as a higher outlet temperature and more work input.

4 Example 2: Adiabatic Compressor with Isentropic Efficiency

Problem Statement: Air enters an adiabatic compressor at $T_1 = 20^\circ\text{C}$ and $P_1 = 1 \text{ bar}$. It is compressed to a final pressure of $P_2 = 5 \text{ bar}$. The compressor has an isentropic efficiency of $\eta_{comp} = 80\%$. The volumetric flow rate at the inlet is $\dot{V}_1 = 1 \text{ m}^3/\text{s}$. Assume air is an ideal gas with $C_P = \frac{7}{2}R$.

Goal: Determine the actual outlet temperature T_2 and the required power $\dot{W}_s$.

4.1 Step 1: Determine the Isentropic Outlet Temperature (T'_2)

First, we analyze the “ideal” (reversible, adiabatic) case. For an ideal gas undergoing an isentropic process ($\Delta S = 0$), the temperature and pressure are related by:

$$\frac{T'_2}{T_1} = \left(\frac{P_2}{P_1} \right)^{R/C_P}$$

Given:

- $T_1 = 20^\circ\text{C} = 293.15 \text{ K}$
- $P_1 = 1 \text{ bar}, P_2 = 5 \text{ bar}$
- $C_P = 3.5R \Rightarrow \frac{R}{C_P} = \frac{1}{3.5} \approx 0.2857$

$$T'_2 = 293.15 \text{ K} \left(\frac{5}{1} \right)^{0.2857}$$

$$T'_2 = 293.15(1.5838) = 464.3 \text{ K}$$

4.2 Step 2: Apply Isentropic Efficiency to find Actual T_2

The isentropic efficiency for a compressor compares the ideal work to the actual work. Since the compressor is adiabatic ($Q = 0$), work is simply the change in enthalpy. For an ideal gas ($dH = C_P dT$):

$$\eta_{comp} = \frac{\dot{W}_{ideal}}{\dot{W}_{actual}} = \frac{H'_2 - H_1}{H_2 - H_1} = \frac{C_P(T'_2 - T_1)}{C_P(T_2 - T_1)}$$

$$\eta_{comp} = \frac{T'_2 - T_1}{T_2 - T_1}$$

Rearranging to solve for the actual outlet temperature T_2 :

$$T_2 - T_1 = \frac{T'_2 - T_1}{\eta_{comp}}$$

$$T_2 = T_1 + \frac{T'_2 - T_1}{0.80}$$

Substituting values:

$$T_2 = 293.15 + \frac{464.3 - 293.15}{0.80}$$

$$T_2 = 293.15 + \frac{171.15}{0.80}$$

$$T_2 = 293.15 + 213.9 = \mathbf{507.1 \text{ K}} \quad (233.9^\circ\text{C})$$

Reality Check

Notice that $T_{actual}(507.1 \text{ K}) > T_{isentropic}(464.3 \text{ K})$. This is always true for a compressor. Irreversibilities (friction, turbulence) generate entropy, which manifests as additional heating of the gas, requiring more work input to achieve the same pressure ratio.

4.3 Step 3: Calculate Power Requirement

To find the power, we first need the molar flow rate from the Ideal Gas Law at the inlet:

$$\dot{n} = \frac{P_1 \dot{V}_1}{RT_1} = \frac{(10^5 \text{ Pa})(1 \text{ m}^3/\text{s})}{(8.314 \text{ J/mol K})(293.15 \text{ K})} = 41.03 \text{ mol/s}$$

Now, calculate the actual work (power):

$$\dot{W}_{actual} = \dot{n}C_P(T_2 - T_1)$$

$$C_P = 3.5(8.314) = 29.1 \text{ J/mol K}$$

$$\dot{W}_{actual} = (41.03 \text{ mol/s})(29.1 \text{ J/mol K})(507.1 - 293.15 \text{ K})$$

$$\dot{W}_{actual} = 41.03 \cdot 29.1 \cdot 213.95 \approx 255,400 \text{ W}$$

Required Power: 255.4 kW

5 Example 3: Quenching a Workpiece

A 5 kg steel part at 600°C is thrown into a 100 kg oil bath at 20°C. The tank is insulated. Calculate the total entropy change.

- $C_{steel} \approx 0.5 \text{ kJ/kg K}$
- $C_{oil} \approx 2.5 \text{ kJ/kg K}$

5.1 Step 1: Find Final Temperature

Energy balance on the **composite system** (closed, adiabatic, no work):

$$\Delta U_{steel} + \Delta U_{oil} = 0$$

$$m_s C_s (T_f - T_{s,i}) + m_o C_o (T_f - T_{o,i}) = 0$$

$$5(0.5)(T_f - 600) + 100(2.5)(T_f - 20) = 0$$

(Note: We can use Celsius for ΔT in energy balances, but NOT for entropy changes when we use logs. When in doubt, however, you can never go wrong using absolute temperatures in Kelvin)

Solving for T_f :

$$2.5(T_f - 600) + 250(T_f - 20) = 0$$

$$252.5T_f = 1500 + 5000$$

$$T_f \approx 25.7^\circ\text{C}$$

5.2 Step 2: Entropy Change

We must treat the steel and oil as separate sub-systems changing state.

- $T_{s,i} = 873 \text{ K}$
- $T_{o,i} = 293 \text{ K}$
- $T_f = 298.8 \text{ K}$

Steel (Cooling): Use the constant pressure formula for solids (and since C_s is given per kg, we can treat it as constant):

$$\Delta S_{steel} = m_s C_s \ln \left(\frac{T_f}{T_{s,i}} \right) = 5(0.5) \ln \left(\frac{298.8}{873} \right) = -2.68 \text{ kJ/K}$$

Oil (Heating): Similarly, for the oil (constant C_o and volume/pressure):

$$\Delta S_{oil} = m_o C_o \ln \left(\frac{T_f}{T_{o,i}} \right) = 100(2.5) \ln \left(\frac{298.8}{293} \right) = +4.90 \text{ kJ/K}$$

Total Entropy Generation:

$$S_{gen} = \Delta S_{total} = -2.68 + 4.90 = +2.22 \text{ kJ/K}$$

The process is highly irreversible. The large temperature difference drives the heat transfer, generating significant entropy.

6 Example 4: The Joule-Thomson Expansion

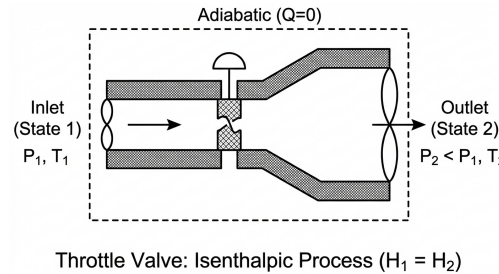


Fig. 1: Schematic of a throttling valve.

Consider a fluid flowing through a throttling valve. The pipe is insulated.

- $\dot{Q} = 0$
- $\dot{W}_s = 0$
- $\Delta KE \approx 0, \Delta PE \approx 0$

6.1 Energy Balance

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{m}(\hat{H}_{in}) &= \dot{m}(\hat{H}_{out}) \\ \hat{H}_{in} &= \hat{H}_{out} \end{aligned}$$

The process is **Isenthalpic** (constant enthalpy).

6.2 Does Temperature Change?

6.2.1 Case A: Ideal Gas

For an ideal gas, enthalpy depends only on temperature ($H = H(T)$). Therefore, if $\hat{H}_{in} = \hat{H}_{out}$, then:

$$T_{in} = T_{out}$$

An ideal gas throttling process results in **no temperature change**.

Entropy Analysis of Throttling - Ideal Gas Finally, we can do an entropy analysis of throttling. Since the process is adiabatic and has no work, the only way to satisfy the Second Law is if entropy increases due to irreversibility.

$$\Delta S = S_{out} - S_{in}$$

Even if T is constant (ideal gas):

$$\Delta S = -R \ln \left(\frac{P_{out}}{P_{in}} \right)$$

Since flow is always from High P to Low P ($P_{out} < P_{in}$), the term $\ln(P_{out}/P_{in})$ is negative. Therefore, $\Delta S > 0$.

The process is irreversible, and entropy is generated due to the sudden expansion and associated turbulence and friction in the valve.

6.2.2 Case B: Real Gas

For real substances, $\hat{H}$ depends on both T and P . We define the **Joule-Thomson Coefficient**:

$$\mu_{JT} = \left(\frac{\partial T}{\partial P} \right)_H$$

- If $\mu_{JT} > 0$: As pressure drops ($dP < 0$), temperature drops ($dT < 0$).
- If $\mu_{JT} < 0$: As Pressure drops, temperature rises.
- When $\mu_{JT} = 0$: No temperature change (we call this the inversion point).

Depending on conditions, real fluids can either cool or heat upon expansion through a valve. For many gases at room temperature, $\mu_{JT} > 0$ and they cool upon expansion (e.g., nitrogen, oxygen). A good refrigerant will show a large temperature change upon throttling (i.e., large μ_{JT}). For some gases (e.g., helium, hydrogen), $\mu_{JT} < 0$ at room temperature, so they heat up when throttled. This is related to whether the substance is dominated by attractive or repulsive intermolecular forces at the given conditions.

We would need an equation of state or property tables to determine the actual temperature change for a real gas undergoing throttling. Here is how you would do it for steam, which is a common working fluid in power plants and often undergoes throttling in turbines and valves.

6.2.3 Case C: Steam

Problem Statement: Steam flows through an insulated throttle valve.

- **Inlet (State 1):** $P_1 = 400$ bar, $T_1 = 500^\circ\text{C}$.
- **Outlet (State 2):** $P_2 = 1$ bar.
- **Flow Rate:** $\dot{m} = 1$ kg/s.

Goal: Determine the final temperature T_2 .

Step 1: Energy Balance We know for a throttling process:

$$\Delta \hat{H} = 0 \implies \hat{H}_1 = \hat{H}_2$$

Step 2: Determine Inlet Enthalpy ($\hat{H}_1$) From the steam tables (superheated steam) at $P_1 = 400$ bar and $T_1 = 500^\circ\text{C}$:

$$\hat{H}_1 = 2906.5 \text{ kJ/kg}$$

(Note: Values may vary slightly depending on the specific steam table used).

Step 3: Determine Outlet Temperature (T_2) We know two properties at the outlet:

1. **Pressure:** $P_2 = 1$ bar.
2. **Enthalpy:** $\hat{H}_2 = \hat{H}_1 = 2906.5$ kJ/kg.

Go to the steam tables for $P = 1$ bar ($T_{sat} \approx 99.6^\circ\text{C}$). Comparing $\hat{H}_2$ to saturation values:

- $\hat{H}_{liq} \approx 417$ kJ/kg
- $\hat{H}_{vap} \approx 2675$ kJ/kg

Since $\hat{H}_2 > \hat{H}_{vap}$, the outlet state is **superheated vapor**.

Looking at the superheated steam table for 1 bar:

- At $T = 200^\circ\text{C}$: $\hat{H} = 2875.5$ kJ/kg
- At $T = 250^\circ\text{C}$: $\hat{H} = 2974.5$ kJ/kg

Our target enthalpy (2906.5) lies between these two temperatures. We linearly interpolate:

$$T_2 = T_{low} + (T_{high} - T_{low}) \frac{\hat{H}_2 - \hat{H}_{low}}{\hat{H}_{high} - \hat{H}_{low}}$$

$$T_2 = 200 + (250 - 200) \frac{2906.5 - 2875.5}{2974.5 - 2875.5}$$

$$T_2 = 200 + 50 \left(\frac{31.0}{99.0} \right)$$

$$T_2 = 200 + 50(0.3131)$$

$$T_2 = 200 + 15.66$$

$$T_2 = \mathbf{215.7^\circ\text{C}}$$

There is a significant drop in temperature from 500°C to 215.7°C just by expanding through the valve, even though no heat was removed. This is the **Joule-Thomson effect** for a real gas where attractive intermolecular forces dominate (positive μ_{JT}). Work was done *internally* to separate the molecules against these attractive forces, consuming internal energy and lowering the temperature.

We can compute the entropy generation as well.

From the steam tables:

- $S_1 = 5.4794 \text{ kJ/kg}\cdot\text{K}$ (at $P_1 = 400 \text{ bar}$, $T_1 = 500^\circ\text{C}$)
- $S_2 = 7.8979 \text{ kJ/kg}\cdot\text{K}$ (at $P_2 = 1 \text{ bar}$, $T_2 = 215.7^\circ\text{C}$)

The entropy generation is:

$$\Delta S_{gen} = S_2 - S_1 = 7.8979 - 5.4794 = \mathbf{2.4185 \text{ kJ/kg}\cdot\text{K}}$$

This positive entropy generation confirms that the throttling process is irreversible.